



PROGRAM

Thursday, March 13, 2025
Sala Alfonso Reyes (Left side)
El Colegio de México

9:20-9:45	REGISTRY
9:45-10:00	OPENING REMARKS Alfonso Medina, Director, CELL, El Colegio de México Ana Aguilar, FFyL-UNAM Klaus von Heusinger (U. zur Köln)
Table 1. Chair: Carolina Oggiani	
10:00-10:30	Rafael Herrera & Andrés Martínez (FFyL-UNAM) "Pejorative morphology and proper names in Tzocohuite Nahuatl."
10:30-11:00	Irasema Cruz Domínguez (El Colegio de México) "Determinantes deícticos y nombres propios en el zoque de Santa María Chimalapa, Oaxaca."
11:00-11:15	COFFEE BREAK
Table 2. Chair: Ana Aguilar	
11:15-11:45	Juan José Arias & María Mare (Universidad Nacional del Comahue) "Proper names in Spanish nominalizations in -ada."
11:45-12:15	Carla Mussini (Universidad de Buenos Aires) "On gender resolution in Spanish proper names."

12:15-12:30	COFFEE BREAK
12:30-13:30	INVITED TALK 1. Chair: Eduardo García Carmen Curcó Cobos (IIF-UNAM) “Proper names and relevance.”
13:30-15:30	LUNCH
	Table 3. Chair: Rafael Herrera
15:30-16:00	Thomas Stolz & Nataliya Levkovich (Universität Bremen) “Proper proprial articles and their look-alikes: Towards a cross-linguistic stock-taking.”
16:00-16:30	Julia Nintemann (Universität Bremen) “Deriving demonyms from toponyms – a cross-linguistic account.”
16:30-16:50	COFFEE BREAK
	Table 4. Chair: Karla Sandoval
16:50-17:20	Elango Kumaran & Luis Miguel Toquero Pérez (Unaffiliated / California State University Fullerton) “When your associates tag along: Associative plurality in Rural Iberian Spanish names.”
17:20-17:50	Carolina Oggiani (U. de la República) “Adnominal Modification with Proper Names in Spanish.”
17:50-18:20	Eduardo Garcia-Ramirez & Andrés Saab (CONICET) “The Semantic Vacuum.”

Friday, March 14, 2025
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	Table 5. Chair: Carolina Oggiani
10:00-10:30	Renato García-González & Ana Clara Polakof (IIA-UNAM & U. de la República) “Last names with the definite in Uruguayan and Mexican Spanish.”
10:30-11:00	Miguel Pastrán & Karla Sandoval (UNAM/ El Colegio de México) “ <i>Mi Rigoberto, mi Julieta o mi Charli</i> . [Determinante Posesivo + Nombre propio] en el español mexicano.”
11:00-11:15	COFFEE BREAK
	Table 6. Chair: Miguel Pastrán
11:15-11:45	Berenice Gómez & Yolanda Acosta (ENAH/El Colegio de México) “Marcación de número y clasificadores en nombres propios en otomí del Valle del Mezquital y en matlatzinca.”
11:45-12:15	Gabriela De la Cruz Sanchez (University of Arizona) “Nouns and demonstratives of Otomi. “

12:15-12:30	COFFEE BREAK
12:30-13:30	INVITED TALK 2. Chair: Klaus von Heusinger Henry Davis (UBC) “Why nominalize a (proper) noun?”
13:30-15:30	LUNCH
	Table 7. Chair: Ana Aguilar
15:30-16:00	Markus Egg (Humboldt-Universität zu Berlin) “Antonomasia: metonymical and metaphorical non-bare proper names.”
16:00-16:30	Mariusz Rutkowski (University of Warmia and Mazury in Olsztyn) “Formal markers of deproprialization of proper names in Polish.”
16:30-17:00	Elizabeth M. Riddle (Ball State University) “A Six-Language Comparison of Non-Bare Proper Names.”
17:00-17:20	COFFEE BREAK
17:20-18:20	Ana Aguilar, Timo Buchholz, Rafael Herrera, Klaus von Heusinger, Carolina Oggiani & Julia Pozas “NBPN in a Crosslinguistic Perspective. Developing elicitation tools.”

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Pejorative morphology and proper names in Tzocohuite Nahuatl

Rafael Herrera Jiménez¹ & Andrés Martínez Martínez²

The status of proper names as predicates or as referential expressions has long been a central debate in linguistics and philosophy (see, among others, Frege, 1960; Kripke, 1980; Matushansky, 2008; Russell, 1956). This paper looks at this discussion from the angle of pejorative morphology in Tzocohuite Nahuatl (TZN).³ In TZN, the suffix *-sosol* conveys a pejorative meaning ‘damn/fucking’ when it attaches to animate nouns (1a) and anthroponyms (1c). In this regard, note that both *-sosol* and the appreciative complex morpheme *pil-...-tsi* cannot modify a correferring expression in the same utterance, which explains the unacceptability of the follow-ups in (1b) and (1d). In this paper, we suggest that *-sosol* encodes an expressive content, since it passes the tests usually employed in the literature to identify expressivity, such as *at-issueness*, *projection*, *descriptive ineffability*, *perspective dependence* and *non-displaceability* (Potts, 2004, 2007; Tonhauser, 2012).

(1) Context: My neighbor José has a dog. José always leaves his door open and his dog unattended. José’s dog always poops in my field. This annoys me a lot.

- a. ne: **chichi-sosol-i** nochipa mo-xi:xa ipan
 dem.dist dog-pej-a always refl-poop on.that
 no-mila
 posr.1sg-field
 ‘That damn dog always poops on my field.’
 #pero como ne: **pil-chichi-tsi** tlawel tlakahetsi
 but as dem.dist aprec-dog-aprec very obedient
 ax-ne:ch-kwalaniya
 neg-o.1sg-make.angry
 ‘But, since it is an obedient lovely dog, it does not bother me.’
- c. ne: Jose-sosol-i nochipa ki-malahate:wa
 dem.dist Jose-pej-a always o.3-release.when.he.is.out
 i-chichi
 posr.3sg-dog
 ‘That damn Jose always leaves his dog unattended when he is out.’
 #pero ne: **pil-Jose-tsi** kwali no-kalchane:wa
 but dem.dist aprec-dog-aprec good posr.1sg-neighbor
 ‘But that amazing Jose is a good neighbor.’

However, *-sosol* cannot convey this pejorative meaning when attached to an inanimate noun, as shown in (2–4). In this case, *-sosol* behaves as a regular descriptive modifier that restricts a noun denotation to old or worn-out individuals.

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³According to Beller and Beller (1979, p. 203), TZN belongs to the dialect group known as Eastern Huasteca Nahuatl, whose ISO is [nhe] (Eberhard et al., 2024). See Martínez Martínez and Peralta Ramírez (2021) for a sketch of TZN phonology and grammar, and Beller and Beller (1979) for an overview of Huasteca Nahuatl. Eastern Huasteca Nahuatl is an Uto-Aztecan language (see, for instance, Canger, 1980, pp. 13–24; Eberhard et al., 2024).

- (2) Context: I sold my house, which was old and ugly.

ni-namakak **no-kal-sosol**
 s.1sg-sell.pst posr.1sg-house-pej
 ‘I sold my house, which was old and worn’

- (3) Context: You sold your house, which was new and pretty.

#ni-namakak **no-kal-sosol**
 s.1sg-sell.pst posr.1sg-house-pej
 ‘I sold my house, which was old and worn.’

- (4) Context: Last night I woke up to go to the bathroom. Since it was dark, I did not see my bed and hit my little toe against it. My bed is new.

#yalwaya ni-mo-makilihi ika **tlapech-sosol-i**
 yesterday s.1sg.refl-hit.pst with.ith bed-pej-a
 ‘Yesterday I hit myself with the bed, which is old and worn.’

Note, that *-sosol* does not necessarily convey this descriptive meaning ‘old, worn’ if it attaches to an anthroponym (5) or an animate noun (6).

- (5) Context: My neighbor Juana is a student. She is young and pretty, but I do not like her because she throws parties every day and does not let me sleep.

Juana-sosol-i nochipa ki-chi:wa ilwipakilistli
 Juana-pej-a always o.3-make party.a
 ‘That damn Juana always throws parties.’

- (6) Context: Somebody gave my neighbor a beautiful puppy dog as a present. Yesterday the puppy cried all night and did not let me sleep.

ne: **chichi-sosol-i** kwayocho:kak nochi yewali
 dem.dist dog-pej-a howl.pst all night.a
 ‘That damn dog howled all the night.’

Bear in mind that *-sosol* can attach to an anthroponym or an animate noun even when they occur in a predicate position. For instance, in (7) the anthroponym *Pedrososoli* ‘fucking Pedro’ occurs as the predicate of a naming construction.

- (7) Context: I do not like Pedro.

mo-tata-wa mits-to:kaxtih-eh **Pedro-sosol-i**
 posr.2sg-parent-pos.pl o.2sg-name.pst-s.pl Pedro-pej-a
 ‘Your parents named you fucking Pedro.’

The behavior of *-sosol* clearly aligns anthroponyms with animate nouns and opposes them to inanimate nouns. For this reason, we argue that in TZN anthroponyms are just a subset of animate nouns. Hence, semantically anthroponyms in TZN should be treated as predicates, just as any other (animate) noun. In this way, the TZN data constitutes new cross-linguistic evidence in favor of the predicate approach to proper names. Finally, it is worth noting that the behavior of *-sosol* in TZN seems to be characteristic of other areally related languages. For instance, in Ch’ol, a Mayan language, the nominal class marker *x-* can convey

honorification only when it attaches to a proper name or a human noun (Arcos López, 2009, §3.5.1). This points to the behavior of expressive morphology as a fruitful ground for identifying the semantic type of anthroponyms in other Mesoamerican languages.

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Abbreviations

a = absolute state, aprec = appreciative, dem = demonstrative, dist = distal, neg = negation, o = object, pej = pejorative, pl = plural, pos = possessed, posr = possessor, pst = past, refl = reflexive, s = subject, sg = subject, 1 = first person, 2 = second person, 3 = third person

Nombres propios en el zoque de Santa María Chimalapa, Oaxaca

Irasema Cruz Domínguez, El Colegio de México

En el zoque de Santa María Chimalapa, Oaxaca (ZMAR), lengua hablada en el sureste de México, tanto los nombres comunes (NCs) como los nombres propios (NPs) pueden codificarse con la presencia de determinantes o sin éstos, tanto en funciones argumentales como en no argumentales. En cuanto a los NCs, esta lengua expresa definitud simple con frases nominales escuetas, en algunos contextos de uso definidos, como los de situación global, como se ve en (1a), o referencia genérica, como en (1b).

- (1) a. *tüjǘk ja'ma pits a'tsǘ*
 tüjǘk **ja'ma** pits Ø=a'ts-wü
 ayer sol ints 3S=arder-CP
 'Ayer el sol ardió mucho.' [Elicitación]

doktoris 'üy kuratsükpa tesa nümpa ka' television

doktor='is 'üy=kurar-tsük-pa te=sa Ø=nüm-pa ka' television
 doctor=ERG 3A=curar-hacer-ICP MED=SIM 3S=decir-ICP DIST televisión
 '“El doctor cura”, así dice la televisión.' [Narración]

Los NCs también pueden aparecer con alguna de las tres instancias de determinantes con contenido deíctico, los cuales se forman a partir de las raíces demostrativas, que expresan tres grados de distancia: proximal *yǘ*, medial *te* y distal *ka'*: i) los demostrativos adnominales, ii) los determinantes deícticos y iii) los determinantes complejos, formados a partir de los dos anteriores (Véase Cuadro 1.)

Cuadro 1. Sistema de determinantes con contenido deíctico en el ZMAR (Cruz Domínguez, *en revisión*).

	Demostrativos adnominales	Determinantes deícticos	Determinantes complejos
Proximal	<i>yǘpü</i>	<i>yǘ'</i>	<i>yǘpü yǘ'</i>
Medial	<i>tepü</i>	<i>Te</i>	<i>tepü te</i>
Distal	<i>kapü</i>	<i>ka'</i>	<i>kapü ka'</i>

De acuerdo con Cruz Domínguez (en revisión), los demostrativos adnominales se comportan de una forma más similar a los demostrativos prototípicos: aparecen en contextos en los que se espera una descripción demostrativa (*cf.* Himmelmann 1997), ii) los determinantes deícticos se comportan de forma más similar a los definidos: aparecen en contextos donde se esperan descripciones definidas (*cf.* Hawkins 1978, Lyons 1999); y iii) los determinantes complejos pueden aparecer tanto en contextos definidos como en demostrativos. En (2), éstos se ejemplifican con la raíz demostrativa medial *te*.

- (2) a. Demostrativo adnominal
 Contexto: Vemos a dos perros, ¿qué hacen?
tepü nu'u tsünaypa ot tepü nu'u magnaypa
tepü nu'u Ø=tsü-nay-pa ot **tepü nu'u** Ø=mag-nay-pa
 MED perro 3S=estar.sentado-EST-ICP y MED perro 3S=estar.parado-EST-ICP
 'Ese perro está sentado (señalando al café) y ese perro está parado (señalando al blanco)'

b. Determinante deíctico

teji te yüga lado te ja'ma 'üy tsütpa jüga komo tümü juego pirotecnico 'üy tsükpa ittü asta kasa pixpa 'itü

teji te **yüy=ka** lado **te ja'ma** 'üy=tsüt-pa **jü.ga** komo **tümü** juego
 EXST MED PROX=FOC lado MED sol 3A=nacer-ICP donde como uno juego
 pirotecnico 'üy=tsük-pa Ø=it-wü asta ka=sa Ø=pix-pa 'it-wü
 pirotécnico 3A=hacer-ICP 3S=EXST-CP hasta DIST=SIM 3S=echar_chispa-ICP EXST=CP
 'Ahí por donde nace el sol, como un juego pirotécnico había y hasta echaba chispa.' [Narración]

c. Determinante complejo

tep te sigaru ney malu ney min jukü nümsukpa

tepü te sigaru ney malu ney min=juk-wü 'üy=nüm-suk-pa
 MED MED cigarro RCP malo RCP 2A=fumar-CP 3A=decir-3PL-ICP
 'El cigarro es malo que lo fumes, dicen' [Narración]

En cuanto a los NPs, éstos pueden aparecer sin determinantes, como se ve en (3). Además, de forma similar a los NCs, también pueden aparecer con un determinante deíctico, como en (4), donde el NP funciona como participante agente, marcado con el caso ergativo = 'is, o con un determinante complejo, como en (5).

- (3) b. *jwan 'is 'üy juyü tüme 'okopiyu*
jwan='is 'øy=juy-wü tumü oko.piyu
 Juan=ERG 3A=comprar-CP uno gallina
 'Juan compró una gallina.' [Elicitación]

- (4) Determinante deíctico
te jwan='is te jwana 'üy=nüm-jay-pa
 MED Juan=ERG MED Juana 3A=decir=APL-ICP
 'Juan le dijo a Juana...' (Kaufman 2013ms.: 880)

- (5) Determinante complejo
Contexto: En la casa están dos primos que se llaman igual, Juan. ¿Cómo diría que este Juan, el más cercano, camina como un niño, y aquel Juan, el más alejado, camina como su papá?
yüp yü jwan une'sa tungajpa 'ot kap ka' jwan kay jatongsa tungajpa
yüpü yü' jwan une'=sa Ø=tung-'aj-pa kapü ka' jwan ka' 'üy=jatong=sas Ø=tung-'aj-pa
 PROX PROX Juan niño=SIM 3s=camino-VRBZ-ICP DIST DIST Juan DIST 3PSR=papá=SIM 3S=camino-VRBZ-ICP
 'Este Juan camina como un niño (y) aquel Juan camina como su papá.' [Elicitación]

Sin embargo, a diferencia de los NCs, en el mismo contexto de (5), donde también se esperaría la presencia de un demostrativo adnominal con NPs, éste resulta inaceptable, como se observa en (6).

- (6) Demostrativo adnominal
yüpü jwan une'sa tungajpa kapü jwan kay jatongsa tungajpa
yüpü jwan une'=sa Ø=tung-'aj-pa kapü jwan ka' 'üy=jatong=sas Ø=tung-'aj-pa
 MED Juan niño=SIM 3s=camino-VRBZ-ICP DIST Juan DIST 3PSR=papá=SIM 3S=camino-VRBZ-ICP

Dada esta distinción, el objetivo de esta investigación es describir y contrastar el comportamiento de los NPs con determinantes frente a los NPs sin determinantes, por un lado, y frente a los nombres comunes con determinantes con contenido deíctico, por otro lado.

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Proper names in Spanish nominalizations in *-ada*

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An interesting and productive phenomenon regarding proper names is their use as verbal predicates (*Maradona* > *maradonear*_{VERB}) and, consequently, the possibility of creating nominalizations in *-ada* (*maradoneada*). These uses trigger many discussions on meaning because, as is well known, proper nouns are said to lack descriptive content, and are supposed to have a referential interpretation instead. Nevertheless, there are many constructions in which proper names acquire a conceptual meaning which deviates from the meaning of “being named X”. In fact, these uses let us obtain an interpretation in which, in this case, the event described by the verb alludes to a salient characteristic attributed to the person the name refers to. The salient feature is not necessarily fixed and may change depending on the acquaintance of the interlocutors with the person in question and their knowledge of this person’s habits, capacities, etc., among other things. In many cases, the conceptual meaning is not clear at all (1) (*Cristina*>*cristineada*), (2) (*Mujica*>*mujiqueda*).

(1) Trump se está mandando Cristineada tras Cristineada pero si lo digo me linchan. [A user of X, 24 September 2024]

‘Trump keeps on behaving like Cristina, but if I say so, I’ll be lynched’

(2) y en una de sus mujiqueadas características... [J. M. Karg, *Cenital*, 2 December 2024]

‘... and in one of Mujica’s characteristic attitudes...’

The focus of this research is on the analysis of nominalizations in *-ada* derived from proper names or, more precisely, from verbs formed from proper nouns. Regardless of the flexibility of conceptual meaning, there are formal features and structural properties that contribute to the predicative interpretation and show that these constructions exhibit a high degree of compositionality.

Following Grimshaw’s (1990) classic distinction between eventive and resultative nominalizations, proper names with *-ada* (PrN-*ada*) display an ambiguous interpretation depending on the context in which they are used. According to Grimshaw, eventive nominalizations are interpreted as processes and denote the activity or action of the base (e.g., *the translation of the proposal*), whereas resultative nominalizations are

associated with the product or state resulting from that action (e.g., *the translations on the table*).

The data show that the distinction between eventive and resultative nominalisations is blurred in these cases: PrN-*ada* seems to encode both meanings (process and result of that process). In relation to its aspectual structure, the sequence denotes achievements, i.e., dynamic, durative and telic events. Finally, when pluralized, they are interpreted with an iterative value.

All in all, PrN-*ada* have a morphologically complex structure of both a nominal and eventive nature whose interpretation is generally of result and denotes an unergative event that describes a prototypical behaviour associated with a PrN. As has been suggested by many authors, there is a certain parallelism between the syntactic configuration of the root base -in this case, unergative- and the internal structure of the nominalisation.

Within the generativist model known as Distributed Morphology (Halle & Marantz 1993), our proposal is that roots are syntactic objects that lack semantic and phonological content (Pfau 2009) and part of the interpretation they receive depends on the structure in which they are assembled. This approach assumes the late insertion of phonological exponents and argues for the idea that roots are not categorized, but acquire their category in the course of the derivation (Embick & Marantz 2008). We assume, then, that proper names contain a root and that the observed difference between referential and predicative readings as well as the aspectual and eventive/resultative properties, result from the position in which the root is merged and its combination with categorizers and other functional projections. We also examine the difference between PrN-*ada* and common nouns-*ada* in order to understand the role of the root and the projections involved in each case.

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On gender resolution in Spanish proper names.

Carla Mussini (Universidad de Buenos Aires)

The aim of this contribution is to present new evidence coming from gender resolution in proper names against the view that proper names share the same underlying syntax as regular common nouns and, consequently, a similar semantics, i.e., they are predicates. At first sight, both have some clear differences, for example, proper names do not bear definite articles in referential uses. But these differences do not persist in every use of proper names, as shown in (1).

(1) a. Todas las María(s) que conozco son amables.

‘Every Mary I know is nice.’

This kind of evidence has been used as a way of equating proper names and common nouns: since proper names can be pluralized, modified and, in general, can occur in the same contexts as common nouns, then they must be common nouns that happen to bear a null determiner. In this talk, I will challenge this view by looking at the distribution of gender. This evidence will not only prove the presence of crucial differences between the two categories previously anticipated, but also shed light onto the way we understand gender in Spanish.

Referential uses: the problem with Human Cloning in bare proper names

Following Harris’ (1991) analysis of gender in Spanish and taking into account the tripartition he posits for it (semantic gender or sex, grammatical gender and morphophonological word markers), I assume that common nouns in general are divided into two groups: those that designate humans, like *profesor* ‘professor’, and others that designate non-humans, like *mesa* ‘table’. Both have grammatical gender, but only human nouns are affected by what Harris calls the Human Cloning rule, which provides a male and a female form for each human noun. Given the sheer reach of this rule, it is to be expected that, if proper nouns are predicates, it affects them all the same.

At first glance, many Spanish proper names seem to abide by the Human Cloning rule, namely, there exists a male and female form for each of them, and the resulting pairs can be, most times, easily predicted, as they align with the observations made for common nouns. (2) shows exactly this.

(2)	Masculine	Feminine	
a.	Alejandro	Alejandra	like <i>alumno/alumna</i>
b.	Juan	Juana	like <i>bailarín/bailarina</i>
c.	René	René	like <i>estudiante</i>
d.	Enrique	Enriqueta	like <i>poeta/poetisa</i>

However, this set of data is incomplete: Human Cloning is seemingly not comprehensive of all proper names (not even of the majority of them), as shown in (3).

(3)	Name	Grammatical gender	Word marker
a.	Mariela	only feminine	-a
b.	Carmen	only feminine	-Ø
c.	Amparo	only feminine	-o
d.	Franco	only masculine	-o
e.	Héctor	only masculine	-Ø
f.	Lucas	only masculine	-Vs
g.	Bautista	only masculine	-a

One might be tempted to equate these Human Cloning non-conforming names to non-human names, but this seems an ad-hoc move in view of the fact that these proper names behave as human DPs in all other respects (e.g., differential object marking).

In summary, a significant portion of proper names are not mated in the way common human nouns are; that is, a male and female form do not necessarily exist for the same name. The assumption that proper names are predicates in a sense entails that proper names should, at least generally, be affected by the one rule that seems overarching over all common human nouns.

Predicative uses: problems with pluralization of non-bare proper names

Pluralized or modified proper names are usually interpreted as something along the lines of 'person named *x*'. Yet, gender resolution on predicative uses of proper names points out to the conclusion that, again, they do not behave as common nouns. Since gender in Spanish works as a privative system with masculine as its unmarked gender, it is expected that the plural masculine of a human noun includes both male and female individuals. This is indeed the case for common nouns, but, as shown in (4), not for proper names.

(4) a. Todos los profesores que conozco son inteligentes.

'Every professor I know is intelligent'

b. Todos los Alejandros que conozco son inteligentes.

'Every Alejandro I know is intelligent'

While (4a) includes men and women who are professors, (4b) does not include men named Alejandro and women named Alejandra. Not even 'neuter' names behave as expected. Take for example the case of shortenings: forms like *Ale* can stem from both *Alejandro* or *Alejandra*, but the same effect is observed. (5a) and (5b) can only refer to exclusively male groups, that's why a mixed interpretation cannot be forced.

(5) a. #Los Ale(s) que conozco, *hombres y mujeres*, son amables.

'#The Ales I know, men and women, are nice.'

b. #Ambos Ale(s), *el chico y la chica*, llamaron ayer.

'#Both Ales, the boy and the girl, called yesterday.'

On the other hand, when there is no determiner or quantifier with a masculine mark, the inclusive interpretation is available, as seen in (6a) and (6b).

(6) a. Cada Ale que conozco, *sea hombre o mujer*, entrena.

'Each Ale I know, man or woman, trains'

b. Tres Ale(s), *dos hombres y una mujer*, vinieron ayer.

'Three Ales, two men and a woman, came yesterday'

The same cannot be said for last names: as seen in (7), the name *Fernández*, used as a predicate, can include men and women in all the contexts *Ale* only includes men. This shows that first names in particular have their own distinctive pattern, radically different from common names.

(7) a. Los Fernández que conozco, *hombres y mujeres*, son amables.

'The Fernández I know, men and women, are nice.'

b. Ambos Fernández, *el chico y la chica*, llamaron ayer.

'Both Fernández, the boy and the girl, called yesterday.'

What the evidence shows is simply the fact that, in regards to gender, human proper names do not behave in the same manner human common names do, whether we observe them in referential contexts (this is, with no determiner) or in predicative ones (modified and pluralized). Subsequently, this is, at the very least, challenging to theories that posit a unified category for all nouns/names. Furthermore, it says something about the way gender manifests in proper names: in contrast to what we know about common nouns, it appears to be inherent instead of inflectional; equipollent as opposed to privative.

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Proper proprial articles and their look-alikes: Towards a cross-linguistic stock-taking

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This talk is intended as trigger for future typologically-minded cross-linguistic research on those elements which are frequently (but inconsistently) labelled **proprial articles** (PAs) in the extant literature. To this end, some basic notional clarifications are called for because there is as yet no generally accepted unitary definition of PA. Kokkelmans (2018: 66) for instance, claims that the term “refers to a definite article or a personal pronoun used with a family word or a personal name, denoting an animate being (person or animal) and functioning as a name.” The possibility of employing the definite article not only with common nouns but also with personal names can be observed throughout the Germanic phylum, cf. (1).

- (1) Luxembourgish [Indo-European, Germanic]
(a) DA + common noun (Schanen/Zimmer 2012: 363)
[**Den** Zuech] huet Verspéidung
[DEF train] have:3SG delay
‘[The train] is late.’
(b) DA + personal name (Schanen/Zimmer 2012: 105)
[**Den** Néckel] huet [den Emil] ugeruff.
[DEF Nicolas] have:3SG [DEF Emil] PART:call
‘[Nicolas] has phoned [Emil].’

In contrast, Muñoz (2019: 62) assumes that “[a] number of languages have an article of a special form that occurs adjacent to names, called the proprial article.” With reference to Māori, Muñoz (2019: 62–63) emphasizes that the PA is distinct from the definite article and that it is “highly selective with its complements, occurring grammatically with names to the exclusion of other nouns.” The two definitions capture different situations because according to Kokkelmans’s opinion, the PA does not necessarily have to be formally distinct from **definite articles** (DAs) that are compatible with common nouns whereas the definition given by Muñoz requires the PA to formally differ from the DA. The Austronesian macrophylum provides ample evidence for the distinction of common articles (= DA) and PAs (Lynch/Ross/Crowley 2011: 38). However, some of the languages differentiate further by way of using different PAs for personal names and place names (Stolz/Levkovich 2022: 258) as is the case e.g. in Chamorro, cf. (2).

- (2) Chamorro [Austronesian, Western Malayo-Polynesian]
(a) DA + common noun (Chung 2020: 213)
Ma-yamak [i batalan] [ni napu]
PASS-break [DEF.DIR plank] [DEF.OBL wave]
‘[The plank] was broken [by the waves].’ [original translation]
(b) PA_{ANTH} + personal name (Chung 2020: 211)
K<in>assi [si Kindu’] [as Kika’].
<PASS>tease [ANTH.DIR Kindu’] [ANTH.OBL Kika’]
‘[Kindu’] was teased [by Kika’].’ [original translation]
(c) PA_{TOPO} + place name (Chung 2020: 98)
S<um>â~saga si Rosa-n che’lu-hu gi-[(i)ya Tini’an].
<NPL>PROG~live ANTH.DIR Rosa-LK sibling-1SG in-[TOPO Tini’an]
‘My sister Rosa is living on [Tinian].’ [original translation]

It is doubtful that the extended functional domain of the DA in (1) falls under the same rubric as the formal distinction of the DA for common nouns and different PAs for personal names and place names in (2). Becker (2021: 41) excludes PAs from the category of articles because “they mark other lexical properties of the referent [...] besides their syntactic function as determiner.”

For Philippine languages, Himmelmann (2011: 145) speaks of personal name markers and non-personal name markers and emphasizes that their paradigms are differently organized. Similarly, DA, PA_{ANTH}, and PA_{TOPO} display markedly different morphosyntactic properties in Chamorro (Stolz/Levkovich 2024). Accordingly, the question arises whether we compare like with like when we subsume all these categories under one and the same heading. We argue that only cases like (2) are proper instances of PAS whereas those which fit the description of (1) are best classified as cases of the extended use of DAS. Since in previous comparative studies (e.g. Handschuh 2017, Salaberri 2020, Stolz/Levkovich 2022) the two scenarios have been lumped together, there is an urgent need to disentangle them again to the benefit of the research programme dedicated to the morphosyntactic typology of names (Stolz/Nintemann 2024). Attention will also be paid to the reasons why DAS are sometimes considered to be PAS in the dedicated literature. The talk marks the first step in this direction by way of comparing data from Chamorro, Kaqchikel, Luxembourgish, and Romanian.

Abbreviations

1/2/3 = 1st/2nd/3rd person, ANTH = anthroponym (aka personal name), DA = definite article, DEF = definite, DIR = direct, LK = linker, NPL = non-plural, OBL = oblique, PA = proprial article, PART = participle, PASS = passive, PROG = progressive, SG = singular, TOPO = toponym (aka place name)

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Deriving demonyms from toponyms – a cross-linguistic account

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A demonym, i.e. “[a] name that refers to the groups of people connected with a particular place” (Perono Cacciafoco & Cavallaro 2023: 267) is usually connected to the respective toponym. The grammatical means languages have to derive demonyms vary cross-linguistically. While some languages have morphemes that can only be used in combination with toponyms, other languages make use of morphemes that fulfill other functions in combination with different nouns, but have a specialized meaning in combination with toponyms. The co-occurrence of a proper name (=toponym) and an additional morpheme thus forms a different proprial base (=demonym), which the bare toponym cannot denote. So far, there has been no cross-linguistic account of the means by which demonyms are derived from toponyms and only limited studies on individual languages seem to exist (but see, e.g. Chesnokova et. al 2021 on Spanish South American and Brazilian demonyms).

Studying the morphological makeup of demonyms from a cross-linguistic perspective reveals different types of morphemes involved in the derivation. In the Oceanic language Neverver, for example, there is a morpheme that is used (almost) exclusively with toponyms:

The sub-class of proper place names is characterized by the ability of member items to occur in a construction of the form *nemakh* ‘denizen’ + proper place name. No other noun, local or otherwise, may modify *nemakh* in this way. The locational interrogative *abi* ‘where’ may be used to question where a particular person or group of people is from [...]. (Barbour 2012: 92)

This description is supported by the following three examples:

(1) Neverver [Austronesian, Oceanic] (Barbour 2012: 92)

<i>nemakh Marin</i>	‘the people of Marin’
<i>nemakh Malbit</i>	‘the people of Malbit’
<i>nemakh abi?</i>	‘the people of where?’; ‘Where are they from?’

Neverver thus employs a morpheme that can occur only with toponyms (and the interrogative pronoun *abi* ‘where’) for the expression of people living at a specific place. Something similar is found in the Australian language Gooniyandi [Bunaban]. In this case, however, there are two morphemes that occur exclusively with toponyms and are traditionally more specific than *nemakh* in Neverver described above:

Place names are formally distinguishable by the fact that they may occur with both of the suffixes *-wanggoo* ‘a person who is associated with the place’ and *-waddawadda* ‘everyone associated with the place’. These two suffixes do not occur in any other context. Ideally, the association between the person(s) and the place is that it is his/her/their dreaming or conception site [...]. However, in actual usage the association may be less stringent. It may be an affiliation through residence, [...]. Alternatively, it may be an affiliation through birth, or through the patriline (less regularly through the matriline). (McGregor 1990: 150)

Apart from morphemes that are used specifically for the derivation of demonyms, some languages make use of morphemes that fulfill different functions depending on the type of noun they combine with. This is, for example, the case in Kwaza:

The morpheme *-nahere* produces a collective noun. When applied to personal names, it refers to the people who are associated with that person in some way: family, tribe, neighbours etc. When applied to place names it refers to the inhabitants of the place. When applied to words for animals, it refers to the members of the species, order or kingdom. When applied to common nouns it is in a way a plural marker. (van der Voort 2004: 479)

The examples in (2) demonstrate how the collective plural suffix *-nahere* evokes different readings when used with a toponym (2a), an anthroponym (2b), and a common noun (2c).

(2) Kwaza [unclassified] (van der Voort 2004: 479)

- a. *sjuping'waja-nahere*
Chupinguaia-COL
'the inhabitants of Chupinguaia'
- b. *tete'ru-nahere*
Teteru-COL
'family of Teteru, those who live where Teteru lives, etc.'
- c. *dai='bwa-da-ki koreja=tyu'hüi-nahere*
grab=finish-1S-DEC knife=small-COL
'I took all the knives.'

Case markers are also available options for the formation of demonyms in some languages. In the Sino-Tibetan language Bunan, for example, genitive case in its most salient function expresses possessive relationships, but more generally, it has the “function of establishing a modifying semantic relationship between a dependent noun and a head noun” (Widmer 2017: 229). Apart from that, the genitive may also be “attached to a place name in order to derive a noun referring to a resident of that place” (Widmer 2007: 230), as exemplified in (3).

(3) Bunan [Sino-Tibetan, Bodic] (Widmer 2017: 230)

kudzu=ki=ci=re *gjar-k-^hak* *t^he=tok* *narsiṃ=tok*
Kullu_Valley=GEN=PL=ADD be_afraid-INTR-PRS.ALLO.PL this=DAT narsiṃha=DAT
'The people from Kullu Valley are also afraid of this (creature), the *narsiṃha*.'

The examples have demonstrated that various types of morphemes may be involved in the expression of a demonym. In this paper, I investigate the different morphological strategies languages employ to derive a demonym from a toponym in a sample of 50 genealogically and areally diverse languages from a functional-typological perspective. It will be shown that all kinds of morphemes – whether free or bound, lexical or functional, exclusive to toponyms or more broadly used – may combine with toponyms for this purpose, and how they are distributed over the world map.

Abbreviations

1 = first person, ADD = additive, ALLO = allophoric, COL = collective, DAT = dative, DEC = declarative, GEN = genitive, INTR = intransitive, PL = plural, PRS = present tense, S = speaker

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When your associates tag along: Associative plurality in Rural Iberian Spanish proper names

1 INTRODUCTION. Languages oftentimes distinguish between additive and associative plurals. The former denote a non-atomic set of individuals that all bear the relevant property (Link 1983, Chierchia 1998), whereas the latter refers to a group of individuals all associated with a single individual (the *focus*) who bears the relevant property (Daniel & Moravcsik 2013). The distinction may be morphologically marked, as in Hungarian (Corbett 2000), or not as in Turkish (Görgülü 2011). Based on a sample of 97 languages, Lewis (2021, 2023) observes that the lack of dedicated morphological markedness for associative plurals correlates with a lack of free-standing definite articles. This (i) predicts the Hungarian-Turkish split, and (ii) rules out languages that have definite articles but make no morphological distinction between additive and associative plural-marking. However, based on new data from 10 speakers, we **show that Rural Iberian Spanish (RIS), as spoken at least in Valladolid and Cuenca, is such a language:** a plural-marked first name with a plural definite article admits an associative reading (1).

- (1) [Román, his wife María, and their kids are at the front door]

Llegaron lo-s Roman-es.

arrived.3PL the-PL Román-PL

‘Román & his associates (i.e. his family) arrived.’ #‘More than one person named Román arrived.’

We show that ① the RIS pattern is a genuine counterexample to Lewis’s generalization, and ② associative plural-marking is asymmetric between first and last names, in that the latter cannot be plural-marked (as in General Spanish, Camacho 2021). **We propose that ① is possible because names, unlike common count nouns, are singleton-denoting, which allows them to pattern counter to Lewis’ generalization. We derive ② from a syntactic difference between first and last names, building on Camacho (2021).**

2 DATA. The associative plural interpretation is restricted to proper names: (1) vs. (2). Differential object marking is not enough to induce an associative interpretation; the plural-marked definite determiner is obligatory: (3). It can also occur with quantificational determiners such as *todos* ‘all’: (4).

- (2) # Llegaron lo-s estudiant-es.

arrived.3PL the-PL student-PL

‘The student & his associates arrived.’

- (3) Vimos a #(lo-s) Roman-es allí

saw.1PL DOM the-PL Román-PL there

‘We saw Román & his associates there’

- (4) Todo-s lo-s Roman-es están aquí

all-PL the-PL Román-PL are here

‘Román & all of his associates are here’

Plural-marked first names can appear as the *of*- complement in partitive constructions (5), and cannot serve as

the antecedent of a sluiced *wh*-phrase (6). Both of these facts indicate that syntactic definiteness, as marked by the definite article, is obligatory (Jackendoff 1977, Chung et al. 1995 respectively). The associative interpretation is unavailable when the name is directly modified by cardinal-denoting expressions: (7). Only the additive interpretation (i.e. the ‘{2/ many} people whose name is Román’) is available. High NP modifiers such as size adjectives (Scott 2002, Cinque 2010) can modify the name without blocking the associative reading. The adjective restricts the members of the group to only those who are tall, which need not include the focus: (8).

- (5) Llegaron {algunos/ varios/ muchos} de lo-s Roman-es

arrived.3PL some.PL several.PL much.PL of the Roman-PL

‘{Some/ A few/ many} of the group comprised of Román & his associates arrived’

- (6) # Juan viajó con lo-s Roman-es, pero no sé con quiénes exactamente.

Juan travelled with the-PL Román-PL but not know.1SG with who.PL exactly

‘Juan travelled with Román & his associates, but I don’t know who with exactly’

- (7) # Llegaron lo-s {2/ mucho-s} Roman-es

arrived.3PL the-PL 2 much-PL Román-PL

‘The {two/ many} people from the group comprised of Román & his associates arrived’

- (8) Llegaron lo-s Roman-es alto-s

arrived.3PL the-PL Román-PL tall-PL ‘The tall members of the group comprised of Román & his associates arrived’

The RIS patterns with first names are rejected by non-RIS Spanish speakers. *Last* names, though, can have an associative reading in General Spanish, as Camacho (2021) notes. However, in both General Spanish and RIS, the last name must be unmarked for number, and overt pluralization yields obligatory additivity: (9).

- (9) a. Llegaron lo-s Altuve([#]-s). arrived.3PL the-PL Altuve -PL
 ‘Altuve and his associates arrived.’
 b. Llegaron los Altuve(-s). arrived.3PL the.PL Altuve(-PL)
 ‘The Altuves arrived.’

3 PROPOSAL. Lewis’s (2021, 2023) analysis based on head movement from Num(ber) to a higher Associative head crucially relies on there being no D layer. The analysis cannot be extended to the the RIS data, given the obligatory requirement of the definite article. We propose instead that the relevant property of languages with free-standing definite articles is that *bare (common count) nouns cannot denote a singleton* – singleton reference requires a full DP, which requires Num (Borer 2005, Harbour 2007, Cowper & Hall 2012). We propose that the associative reading arises when the ordinary plural Num head combines with a singleton-denoting *nP*. The only singleton-denoting *nPs* in a language like Spanish are proper names; thus only proper names admit an associative reading of the plural. Following Ghomeshi & Massam (2009), we assume that names are associated with a special *n* head, which we take to form a type-*e*-denoting *nP*: ‘the individual that bears the name’. This *nP* can directly combine with D: (10). When the name is used predicatively, (i.e. denoting ‘being named X’ – as in additive plurals, relevantly), there is an additional *n* layer (Saab & Lo Guercio 2019, Jambrović 2023), responsible for making the first name count-like; we take this *n* to create a predicate of type $\langle e, t \rangle$ and impose a semi-lattice structure (Link 1983) on the name *nP*. The higher *nP* is then selected and restricted by the features on Num. The structure is in (11). If [-SG], Num restricts the *nP* to non-atomic pluralities (e.g. the sums of individuals named Román).

- (10) [DP D [*nP_e* *n_{name}* $\sqrt{\text{Román}}$]] (11) [DP D [NumP Num [*nP_{\langle e, t \rangle}* *n* [*nP_e* *n_{name}* $\sqrt{\text{Román}}$]]]]

We propose that there is a third possible structure: the referential *nP* can combine with a Relator head R, as in (12). This produces the associative plural. (12) [DP D [NumP Num [RP $\langle e, t \rangle$ R [*nP_e* *n_{name}* $\sqrt{\text{Román}}$]]]]

In the spirit of Nakanishi & Tomioka (2004), we propose that R composes with a human name singleton *s* and returns a set *S* consisting of *s* (the focus) and pluralities associated with *s*. The ordinary plural Num head (which triggers *l*-(*e*)*s*/ plural concord throughout the DP) combines with RP and operates as it normally does, restricting the set to only the pluralities. Finally, the definite article picks out the unique salient plurality. This correctly predicts that the focus need not belong to the group, as discussed for (8).

We assume that numerals are lower than Num (Sauerland 2003, Scontras 2013, Martí 2020, a.o.). This explains why (7) is unacceptable with the reading shown – the numeral is too low to scope over the group. (7) is also unacceptable with the interpretation ‘2 Románs and their associates arrived’; this is because R cannot compose with a non-singleton focus, as evidenced by its incompatibility with non-singleton names:

- (13) # Llegaron lo -s ABBA (-s)
 arrived.3PL the -PL ABBA (-PL)
 ‘The members of the band ABBA and their associates arrived.’

Camacho (2021) argues that last names in associative plurals are noun-noun compounds with a silent group-denoting head. This accounts for the lack of plural marking – in Spanish, the non-head of noun-noun compounds does not participate in number concord – but it predicts that (7) should allow the interpretation ‘2 groups of Román’s associates arrived’, which is not available. We propose that last names are compounded with a semantically inert noun instead. In (9a), *n* directly combines with the root (12), and the last name adjoins to it – this proximity to the root makes concord unavailable. In (9b), the last name optionally adjoins to either of the *nPs* in (11). When in the higher position, it is able to participate in concord.

4 OUTLOOK. We documented a novel pattern of associative number-marking in an understudied variety of Spanish. Our hypothesized crosslinguistic generalization is that plural on Num can be associative only with singleton-denoting *nPs* which have undergone a group-forming operation via a Relator head. The data question surface-level typological generalizations and call for more detailed study of individual languages.

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Adnominal Modification with Proper Nouns in Spanish

Introduction As it has been well attested in the literature, the adverb *muy* ('very') in Spanish is restricted to modifying expressions that are both adjectives and gradable (RAE & ASALE, 2009, 20.4.1 20.4.3.a., 19.3.3b.). As seen in (1), the adverb combines with words like *big* and *tall*, which are canonical examples of gradable adjectives expressing an ordering in terms of size and height, respectively.

- (1) Juana es muy grande/ alta.
Juana is very big tall
'Juana is very big/ nice/ tall.'

Regarding the nominal domain, nouns are admittedly not the category that most lends itself to degree constructions¹. However, the data in (2) show that proper personal nouns in Spanish—in particular, Rioplatense Spanish—can indeed be modified by *muy* ('very') (Sánchez-Méndes & Polakof, 2022), but only when they appear in predicative position:

- (2) a. Tiene un estilo muy Lady Gaga.
has one style very Lady Gaga
b. Esa jugada de Lamine Yamal fue muy Messi.
that move of Lamine Yamal was very Messi

Goal. Assuming that proper nouns are rigid designators that lack descriptive meaning (Kripke 1980), and, thus, that they are inherently non-gradable predicates (Kennedy & McNally 2005), the aim of this presentation is to explore the meaning contribution and syntax of proper nouns when selected by this degree adverb.

Characterization. In the first part of this presentation we offer a descriptive analysis and show that proper nouns (which do not need to refer to famous individuals) can be modified by *muy* ('very'), expressing a truth-conditional content. As seen in (3a), *muy* ('very') can be replaced by other degree modifiers (3a), it cannot co-occur with more degree words (3b), and it is incompatible with wh-exclamatives (3c), these three facts suggesting that *muy* ('very') preserves its degree status as DegP.

- (3) a. El apartamento es bastante Ana.
the apartment is fairly Ana
b. *El apartamento es muy súper Ana.
the apartment is very super Ana
a. *Qué/Cuán muy Ana es el apartamento!
what how very Ana is the apartment

As for the meaning of the proper noun, it does not refer to the individual called Ana, but rather to one or more salient properties (which may vary from context to context) of the referent in question. Example (4) illustrates this in the continuation sentence.

- (4) Ese apartamento es muy Ana. Está pintado de blanco, el color preferido de Ana.

¹ In Rioplatense Spanish degree modifier *re*, similar to *muy* ('very'), can modify certain types of common nouns. See Kornfeld & Kuguel (2013) and also Saab (2024) for an overview.

that apartment is very Ana is painted of white the color favorite of Ana.
Intended interpretation: 'That apartment has a style typical of Ana. It's painted in white, her favorite color.'

In the second part of the presentation, I propose that *muy* ('very') triggers an expressive meaning. More precisely, it expresses an emotional attitude from the speaker towards the situation involving the referent denoted by the proper noun (as already argued in Sánchez-Méndez & Polakof (2022)). In order to prove this behavior, we rely in some of the tests commonly used in the literature to identify expressivity, such as at-issueness, projection, descriptive ineffability, and non-displaceability (Potts, 2005; Tonhauser, 2011; Gutzman, 2019). For example, being a not at-issue content, the expressive meaning in (5) cannot be asserted nor denied.

- (5) A: Esa remera es muy Teodoro.
that t-shirt is very Teodoro

Intended interpretation: 'That t-shirt has a style typical/characteristic of Teodoro (an I feel excited about it)'.

B: # Es verdad. Me encanta que esa remera sea muy Teodoro.
is true pronoun love that that t-shirt is very Teodoro
'It's true. I love that t-shirt is typical of Teodoro'.

B: #No es verdad. No me gusta que esa remera sea muy Teodoro.
No is true no pronoun like that that t-shirt is very Teodoro
'It's true. I love that t-shirt is typical of Teodoro'.

Analysis. The formal analysis aims to capture the nature of *muy* ('very') as a mixed expressive (Sánchez-Méndez & Polakof 2022). From a semantic point of view, the adverb is a function that takes an entity, returns a set of ordered properties of that entity, and increases the degree of one of those properties, which may vary in context (Waksler, 2012). On the syntactic side, I follow Gutzmann & Turgay (2015) and Saab (2024) in that within the DP there is an additional adnominal degree phrase whose Deg is marked with an [+exp] feature as well as the D position. Assuming a classical view on proper nouns (Longobardi, 1994), I would like to suggest that given that DegP interferes between D and NP, the proper noun is unable to raise to D, thus staying in situ and preserving its property interpretation.

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The Semantic Vacuum

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What are proper names (PNs)? Which grammatical categories can accompany them? What is the meaning contribution of such accompanying elements? And how does this meaning combine with that of PNs? These are the questions we want to address in this paper. We will start with a simple, well-known, and well-ignored, phenomenon concerning PNs and use it as a trigger for a simple yet fruitful answer to our first question. Answers to subsequent questions will follow naturally.

1. What are proper names?

Ziff (1960) argues that “it is not possible to state a simple strong generalization about proper names” [1960:93]¹. Yet, even Ziff (1960) admits one systematic regularity, a strong generalization, for PNs in natural languages: they always appear in bare singular constructions. What Ziff (1960), and with him most of the tradition, failed to note is that *only* PNs appear in singular constructions such as (1) to (3).

- (1) _____ is on the mat.
- (2) _____ was by the mat.
- (3) _____ was by a mat.

Interestingly these constructions admit any expression be it a noun, an adjective or a verb, but transform it into a PN.

- (4) Sausage is on the mat.
- (5) Red was by the mat.
- (6) Tequila was at the house.
- (7) Rotten is playing with his friends.
- (8) Big is not doing his homework.
- (9) Ask is coming home.

Typically, (4) to (9) will be interpreted as describing the whereabouts of an individual – a cat, a dog, or even a human being. This pattern is well observed across languages.

- (10) Chorizo duerme en su cama
Chorizo sleeps in. his bed.
- (11) Frage ist so langsam.
Question is so slow.
- (12) Marrazo azokara joan zen.
Shark to-the-market go was.

For this to be the case, the ‘_____ is F’ construction must be a semantic vacuum (SV), sucking out all semantic content from whatever expression is placed in argument position, turning it into a PN. Vacuumed expressions behave as ordinary nominals as in (14)-(18).

- (13) ¿Quién se comió la pizza? Chorizo.
Who self ate the pizza? Chorizo.
- (14) Wer ist dieser langsame Läufer? Frage.
Who is this slow runner? Question.
- (15) ¿Dónde está Tequila? En la cama.
Where is Tequila? In the bed.

¹ Ziff. P. 1960. *Semantic Analysis*. Cornell University Press.

- (16) Wo ist Frage? Hinter.
Where is Question? Behind..
- (17) Non dago Handi? Bere ohean lotan.
Where there-is Big? His in-bed sleeping.
- (18) Nor da korrikalari geldo hori? Gorri.
Who is runner slow that? Red.

If this is a universal fact about human languages, then it seems to be an essential feature of PNs. (SV) is a universal PN generator. If we take this to be definitory, as all other features lack such universality, then substantial consequences follow. First, PNs are all and only those expressions that repeatedly occur in SV constructions. There will naturally exist a list of expressions that are regularly so used. Yet, new ones may always be generated. Second, PN semantics is emptied out and is, thus, null or void in semantic composition. PNs are interpreted by purely contextual, pragmatic means. Even if you take PNs to be a subset of common nouns (CNs), SV will generate new PNs out of the rest that cannot keep such semantics. Further results follow.

2. Which categories may accompany PNs?

Suppose we add a determiner to the SV, thus getting (20) out of (21).

- (19) Sausage is on the mat.
- (20) The Sausage is on the mat.

If the determiner is not an expletive, it will have precluded the SV from doing its work, letting the CN ‘sausage’ do its ordinary semantic work. Thus, ‘sausage’ in (20) will not be a PN and hence ‘the’ may not be said to be accompanying a PN. If, on the other hand, the determiner is an expletive, as in Romance languages and, the result (21) is still an SV then the determiner accompanies a PN.

- (21) El Chorizo, el mejor corredor de todos, se ganó la medalla.
The Chorizo, the best runner of all, self won the medal.

Throughout South American Spanish two different patterns emerge for expletive Det+PN constructions. In Chilean Spanish the personal article is fully innocuous, with no expressive difference between Det+PN and PN. Argentinian and Uruguayan Spanish allow for Det+PN, yet the use carries a familiarity expressive content (see Oggiani and Aguilar Guevara, 2024²). Apparently this same array of alternatives exists among dialects of German.

So determiners may accompany PNs as expletives, for otherwise the construction is not an SV, and the expression used is no longer a PN as in (20) (see Longobardi 1994 and 2005)³. This argument generalizes to all other accompanying categories, such as honorifics and adjectives.

- (22) Don Chorizo vino de visita.
Don_{HON.sing} Chorizo came to visit.
- (23) #Dones Chorizos vinieron de visita.
Don_{HON.plu} Chorizo_{plu} came to visit.

² Oggiani, C. and Aguilar-Guevara, A. 2024. “Determined proper nouns in Rioplatense Spanish express interpersonal proximity”. *Borealis. An International Journal of Hispanic Linguistics*.

³ Longobardi, G. 2005. “Toward a unified grammar of reference”. *Zeitschrift für Sprachwissenschaft*. 24, 5-44.

As observed by Bernstein, et.al. (2019)⁴ (see also Saab, 2021)⁵, honorifics in Spanish do not allow for pluralization. Precluding SV in (22) from becoming a non-SV construction in (23). As with adjectives, notice (24) and (25) which parallels the difference between (19) and (20).

(24) Red Sausage is lying on the mat.

(25) The Red Sausage is lying on the mat.

3. The case against predicativism

The claim that, if present, the definite article in an SV construction – whereby a CN is transformed into a PN – must be expletive is not a mere assumption against Matushansky's (2006 and 2008) view that names are always accompanied by a full-blown article followed by descriptive content. Rather, it is an argument against this view. For suppose Matushansky's view is correct and all argument uses of PNs are (must) be accompanied by a full-blown article, and consider the case of 'shark', which is transformed from a CN in (26) to a PN in (27), and back into a CN in (28).

(26) The fish that swam past the surfers was a shark.

(27) Shark is in the kitchen.

(28) A shark is in the kitchen.

If Matushansky is correct, in (27) 'shark' is accompanied by an unpronounced yet full-blown definite article. Yet, if such were the case, (27) would be semantically equivalent to (29) where 'shark' is accompanied by a full-blown *and* pronounced definite article.

(29) The shark is in the kitchen.

Yet, clearly, 'shark' cannot be interpreted as a PN in (29). Instead, it is interpreted as in (28), a non-transformed use of the CN 'shark' denoting a particular squaliform fish. Whenever accompanied by a semantically full-blown determiner a CN in argument position will always be interpreted as a CN and cannot be transformed into a PN. Thus, if Matushansky is correct (2006 and 2008), CNs can never be transformed into PNs by merely placing them in argument position of a singular predicate construction. This, of course, is the wrong prediction.

Transformed PNs must not be accompanied by a full-blown definite article. Matushansky (2006) does consider the fact that many languages prohibit the use of definite articles preceding PNs. She argues that the DefArt+PN construction is the product of M-merger and that PNs without preceding articles constitute a class of PNs that, due to some morphological or root feature, block M-merger. It could be that transformed CNs, precisely due to the change involved in their transformation, block the M-merger and preclude the full-blown article from appearing, thus allowing for the CN to transform into a PN.

This explanation, however, has unwelcome results. First, it implies that CNs constitute a separate class of terms from that of PNs, since the latter are meant to allow for M-Merger while the former do not. If so, then the very idea that PNs are but a subset of CNs themselves constituting predicates is weakened. On this view, PNs and CNs just seem to be different kinds of expressions. Second, if the M-merger blocking account is to apply to the transformation of CNs into PNs – as in (26) and (27) above – then it better be that the blocking does not only preclude a pronounced definite article but also a phonologically null yet semantically full-blown one. For otherwise we would be back at square one, with (27) – where 'shark' is a transformed PN – having the semantics of (29) – where

⁴ Bernstein, J. Ordóñez, F., and Roca, F.. 2019. "On the emergence of personal articles in the history of Catalan". In, *Cycles in language Change*, edited by M. Bouzouita, et. al. Oxford: Oxford University Press, 88–108.

⁵ Saab, A. 2021. "A short note on honorifics and personal articles in Spanish and Catalan. Consequences for the theory of proper names." *Isogloss. Open Journal of Romance Linguistics*, 7, 6, 1-14.

‘shark’ is an ordinary CN. Thus, to account for PN transformation of CNs, predicativism must give up on the idea that PNs are always accompanied by full-blown definite articles (pronounced or not).

4. What is the meaning contribution of such accompanying elements?

Since PNs are products of SV, accompanying constructions may not make semantic contributions other than merely marking a denotational type due to their syntactic role in the SV construction. They may, of course, make expressive, and otherwise pragmatic contributions, that may vary in their details from case to case but which are always derived from the context of use.

5. How does this meaning combine with that of a PN?

If PNs are products of SV, they seem to make no semantic contribution based on their lexical semantics. It is an open question whether they may have other kinds of semantically encoded meanings, e.g., via conventional implicatures. Conventions, together with pragmatic reasoning, may account for such behavior. This includes all predicative uses, but also referential and identifying ones. We’ve claimed that PNs merely carry a denotational type associated to their syntactic role, lacking any further semantic information. Yet, if ‘N’ is to play any syntactic role, it must have a syntactic root $\sqrt{N}$. Thus, for every ‘N’ we have a $\sqrt{N}$ and a denotational type that will adapt to the particular syntactic configuration in which $\sqrt{N}$ is inserted (see Saab and Lo Guercio, 2020)⁶. If combined with a determiner phrase it may get into argument position, thus demanding an *e*-type denotation. If combined with a null noun it may take predicate position, demanding an $\langle e, t \rangle$ -type denotation. To this we must add the information systematically associated with PNs due to their conventional use in contexts. For example, in argument position uses of ‘N’ will conventionally contribute that there is one object for ‘N’; that α is the most salient object in context *c* where ‘N’ is used; and that α is named ‘N’ in *c*.

Thus, we have a root, a syntactic combination, a denotational type and a set of conventionally associated information for every type of use of a PN. Together, this set of information give place to a paradigm for ‘N’. The paradigm for argument use of ‘N’, for example, is given in (30).

(30) Argument ‘N’

- (a) $\sqrt{N}$
- (b) $[_{DP} D[_{nP} n + \sqrt{N}]]$
- (c) $[[N]]$: *e*-type
- (d) there is one object for ‘N’ in *c*; α is salient in *c*; α is named ‘N’ in *c*; etc.

The predicate paradigm for ‘N’ can be easily derived from (30) by updating the syntactic combination, given by the predicate use, and the adapting elements (b) and (c) accordingly. Thus, (31) offers the paradigm for predicate use of ‘N’, still with an empty (vacuumed) semantics.

(31) Predicate ‘N’

- (a) $\sqrt{N}$
- (b) $[_{DP} D[_{numP} [_{nP} \langle e, t \rangle Num + [_{nP} n + \sqrt{N}]]]]$
- (c) $[[N]]$: $\langle e, t \rangle$ -type
- (d) there is a property associated to ‘N’ in *c*; being named ‘N’ is salient in *c*; etc.

The paradigm in (31) delivers a straightforward account of plural uses of PNs as in (32) to (34).

- (32) The Smiths are coming.
- (33) There are three Lauras in the room.
- (34) The department made an offer to a Martha.

⁶ Saab, Andrés & Lo Guercio, Nicolás. 2020. “No name: The allosemy view”. *Studia Linguistica* 74(1), 60–97.

Last names with the definite in Uruguayan and Mexican Spanish

Introduction: the Hispanic literature (Saab and Lo Guercio, 2020, Saab, 2021, among others) has attested the use of the feminine definite article with last names of famous actresses, as (1). Nonetheless, they have argued that the combination of the masculine article with a last name is incompatible, even if they are famous, as (2).

1. La Legrand, la Loren, La Callas (Saab, 2201, ft te 2)
2. #El de Niro, #el Alcón, #el Mastroiani (Saab, 2021, footnote 2)

Our goals: i) to show (with examples taken from Twitter) that in Uruguayan (US) and Mexican Spanish (MS) the combination of the definite article does not have a restriction in relation to gender and last names as (3 to 5), ii) to present particular effects in relation to shortening last names in Mexican Spanish, and iii) to defend that the said combination comes with additional meaning.

3. El Ojeda es un fake. (<https://x.com/Goicoydiezmas/status/1855593815920304401>)
'The Ojeda is a fake.' (US)
4. Deberían formar una nueva nación, Ortega, Canel, Maduro y el lópez' (<https://x.com/DesdeBarandilla/status/1860116212099035201>)
'They should for a new nation, Ortega, Canel, Maduro and the López' (MS)
5. El México de Lafourcade vs el México de la Downs. (<https://x.com/PinedayAguilar/status/1853981630374740264>)
'The México of Lafourcade vs the Mexico of the Downs' (MS)

Working Hypothesis 1: the use of last names gives rise to a conversational implicature of social distance and (perhaps) unfamiliarity. When a speaker utters (6) she implicates that she is not familiar with Downs. Note, however, that the communicated (Grice, 1975) meaning is easily cancelable in (7).

6. Ahí viene Downs, solo la conozco de nombre
'There comes Downs, I only know her by name'
7. Ahí viene Downs, mi mejor amiga.
'There comes Downs, my best friend.'

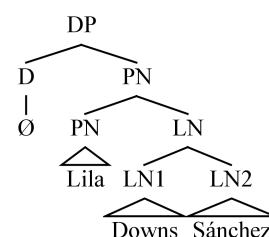
Working Hypothesis 2: the definite article introduces a familiarity effect (inspired in Heim 1982), that can be analyzed as a conversational implicature (Horn and Abbott, 2012, Hawkins, 1991). Thus, when it combines with the last name, it cancels the social distance effect, in (8-9):

8. #Ahí viene la Downs, solo la conozco de nombre
'#There comes the Downs, I only know her by name'
9. Ahí viene la Downs, mi mejor amiga.
'There comes the Downs, my best friend'

Working Hypothesis 3: both the feminine and masculine definite article can combine with last names, as shown in several examples, and it can have a negative meaning, as in (3), and a positive meaning, as (10).

10. ¡Qué hombre el Orsi!
(<https://x.com/22rrocio/status/1859305951326765467>)
'What a man the Orsi!' (US)

A syntactic-semantic explanation for WH1: proper names (which include first and last names) have a complex syntax, as in fig. 1, where LN1 (last name1) and LN2 (last name 2) form a



constituent which is the complement of the FN (first name). Both LN1 and LN2 can be elided, and FN as well. The FN is type *e*, and LN are of type $\langle e, e \rangle$, that is they take a name and make it a more specific name. Then, they combine with the FN, and we have a type *e* proper name (PN) which will move to an empty D (we follow Longobardi, 1994 here). We assume that at FF the speaker omits the FN, and uses the LN, thus giving us a conversational implicature of nonfamiliarity (because the PN is not there).

A semantic-pragmatic explanation of WH2 and WH3: proper names are in the upper right part of the scale of uniqueness (Ortmann, 2014, Bernstein, Ordóñez, and Roca, 2019), and can only appear with definite articles in Spanish once it has evolved (diachronically) into a point where it can be used to redundantly display unambiguous reference, and has the type $\langle e, e \rangle$ (see Ortmann, 2014). Thus, our definite article is a true expletive that may appear in D. It does not provide the PN with definiteness or uniqueness, since they are already of type *e*. The use of the said definite article (even if it is not the substantive one as in Longobardi, 1994) gives rise to a conversational implicature of familiarity (Hawkins, 1991).

The familiarity implicature competes with the social distance implicature that arises with the use of the last name. In the said competition, the use of the definite article (the marked option) occurs because the speaker intends to mean something that cannot be meant with the use of the bare LN (Leonetti, 2022, 54). Given the two alternatives, the use of the article allows the speaker to express familiarity with the entity that's being referred to with the last name. With this, we explain the effects in (8) and (9). We do not, however, explain (3), (4). and (10). They involve negative and positive values which we think can be explained cognitively: once the speaker knows the person she is referring to, if she has a negative attitude in that moment she will use it pejoratively, and if she has a positive attitude in the moment of the utterance she will use it positively. Lastly, (4) has a clear pejorative meaning that arises due to the omission of the LN2 of López Obrador (México's ex-president). The fact that the speaker chooses to use *López* connects that use with background information (being a common LN, a working class LN, etc.) that allows them both to conclude that what is relevant for the communication is that the speaker does not like López Obrador (Sperber and Wilson, 2006)

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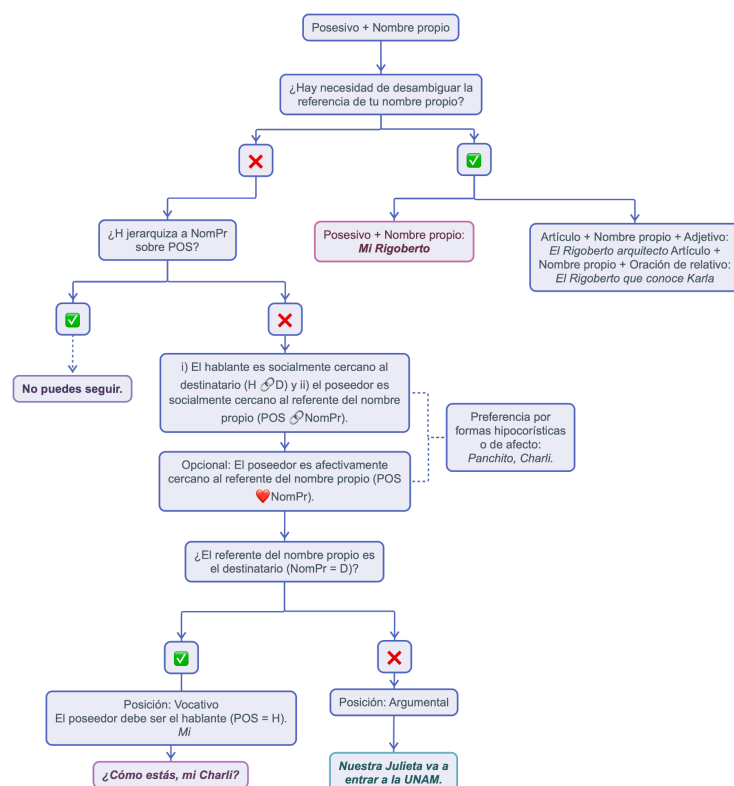
Mi Rigoberto, mi Julieta o mi Charli. [Determinante Posesivo + Nombre propio] en el español mexicano

En construcciones del tipo [Det Posesivo + Nombre Propio] en español, puede pensarse que el aporte semántico del elemento posesivo es meramente expresivo, de tal suerte que indica cercanía o cariño entre el hablante y el referente del nombre propio. No obstante, observamos que las construcciones de este tipo pueden usarse en por lo menos tres estructuras distintas que se distinguen a partir de i) el aporte interpretativo del determinante posesivo, ii) la relación entre el referente del determinante posesivo y los participantes del acto de habla, iii) la posición que la construcción ocupa dentro de la estructura oracional, según se muestra en los siguientes ejemplos.

- (1) Contexto: Lupe conoce a un Rigoberto que trabaja como arquitecto. Luis conoce a un Rigoberto que se dedica a la cocina. Comentamos lo gracioso de conocer a dos Rigobertos.
 - a. **Mi** Rigoberto no podrá hacerte un pastel pero **tu** Rigoberto no va a poder hacerme una casa.
 - b. # Rigoberto no podrá hacerte un pastel pero Rigoberto no va a poder hacerme una casa.
- (2) Contexto: Una mamá habla sobre el futuro de su hija.
 - a. Pues **nuestra** Julieta va a entrar a la UNAM. ¿A dónde va a entrar **su** Panchito?
 - b. Pues Julieta va a entrar a la UNAM. ¿A dónde va a entrar Panchito?
- (3) Contexto: Una profesora le habla a su asistente.
 - a. ¿Cómo estás, **mi** Charli?
 - b. ¿Cómo estás, Charli?

En (1), observamos que el posesivo funciona como un mecanismo de desambiguación, cuyo aporte permite distinguir entre dos referentes homónimos. De igual manera, sólo en estos casos el determinante posesivo no es opcional en la construcción, mientras que en los casos de (2) y (3) el determinante puede omitirse, según muestran (1b), (2b) y (3b). En (2) y (3), no hay dos referentes en competencia y la contribución del posesivo es dar información sobre la relación entre i) los participantes del acto de habla (hablante = H, destinatario = D) y de ii) los referentes del determinante posesivo (POS) y del nombre propio (NomPr). Los ejemplos (2) y (3) se distinguen por la posición que ocupa la frase determinante; mientras que en (2), ocupa una posición argumental, en (3) ocupa la posición de vocativo, lo que afecta la disponibilidad de las formas posesivas que pueden acompañar al nombre propio. En la posición de vocativo, sólo puede aparecer el posesivo de primera singular *mi*, mientras que en las construcciones de (1) y (2), está disponible el paradigma completo, como indican las frases *tu Rigoberto*, *nuestra Julieta* y *su Panchito*. También defenderemos que la posición (no) argumental de la FD guía las posibilidades de interpretación de la relación, identitaria o no, entre los referentes de D y de NomPr.

Propondremos que las posibilidades de interpretación de [Det Posesivo + Nombre Propio] se generan en función del siguiente diagrama. Tras determinar si se trata o no de una estructura del tipo (1), nos podemos centrar en aquellas construcciones donde operan las siguientes presuposiciones e inferencias. La primera condición para generar las interpretaciones relevantes es que el hablante no considere que el referente del nombre propio (NomPr) ocupe una posición jerárquicamente superior al referente del determinante posesivo (POS). En segundo lugar,



consideramos que en las interpretaciones resultantes de las construcciones [Det + Nombre Propio] se codifican distintos valores de distancia social, dentro de los que se encuentra el de cercanía afectiva. Según se verá, para los casos en los que existe cercanía social entre POS y NomPr, se genera una inferencia de cercanía afectiva entre estos facultada por un uso preferente del hipocorístico del nombre propio en la construcción (*tu Panchito*). Por último, se verifica si la referencia del nombre propio es o no idéntica a la del destinatario para determinar la posición (no) argumental. En caso de que entre NomPr y D exista una relación de identidad, se vuelve obligatorio que POS tenga una relación de identidad con H, lo que explica la restricción al posesivo *mi*. Este proceso de interpretación se resume en el *Diagrama 1*.

Nuestra propuesta busca enmarcarse en la discusión más amplia sobre el significado de los nombres propios y la sintaxis de los actos de habla, al explorar las posibilidades de contribución semántica de los determinantes posesivos en español y cómo se combinan con el significado inherente de los nombres propios. Finalmente, buscamos involucrarnos en la discusión de la estructura sintáctica que proyectan los nombres propios en estas construcciones, integrando las dimensiones morfológica, sintáctica, semántica y pragmática en el análisis.

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*Marcación de número y clasificadores en nombres propios en otomí del Valle del Mezquital
y en matlatzinca*

En matlatzinca y otomí (lenguas otomangues de la rama otopame), los sustantivos comunes en función argumental pueden aparecer con un determinante o escuetos. Cuando son escuetos, únicamente aparecen con las marcas de número o con un clasificador. Por otra parte, en ambas lenguas, los nombres propios que denotan personas aparecen con la marca de número singular (otomí) o con un clasificador (matlatzinca). En este trabajo analizamos la contribución de significado que estos elementos hacen a los nombres propios de estas dos lenguas y sus funciones sintácticas.

Las oraciones de (1) ilustran el uso de las marcas de número *ra=* y *ya=* en sustantivos comunes en otomí, y las oraciones de (2) ilustran el uso del clasificador *in=/n=* y de las marcas de número *te=* ‘dual’ y *ne=* ‘plural’ en sustantivos comunes en matlatzinca.

- (1) a. *‘na ra chofe bi púnts’i ra tsanza*
 ‘na ra=chofe bi=púnts’i **ra=tsanza**
 IND.SG SG=chofer 3PDO=volcar **SG=camión**
 ‘Un chofer volcó el camión.’
- b. *‘ra ya chofe bi púnts’i ya tsanza*
 ‘ra ya=chofe bi=púnts’i **ya=tsanza**
 IND.PL PL=chofer 3PDO=volcar **PL=camión**
 ‘Unos choferes volcaron los camiones.’
- (2) a. **N=thimaati** ka tótshə tenówi nin to mo-wewi
 CLS=molcajete PRED roto dos 3sg.POS DIM pie-DL
 ‘El molcajete tiene rotas sus dos patitas.’
- b. ’Ih kurá kwe’na nóti tenó-wewi **te=šthéti**
 LOC corral 3DL.INCPL estar.parado dos-PL **DL=borrego**
 ‘En el corral están dos borregos’
- či rošú-hə **ne=’óni**
 y tres-PL PL=pollo
 y tres pollos.’

Ahora, mostramos el uso de estas marcas en nombres propios: *ra=* en otomí (3), e *in=/n=* en matlatzinca (4).

- (3) a. *Ra Sabina bi méni ya pähni*
 ra=Sabina bi=méni ya=pähni
 SG=Sabina 3PDO=lavar PL=blusa
 ‘Sabina lavó las blusas.’
- b. *Ra Xuua bí hä ya dutu ‘Monda pa di paua*
 ra=Xuua bí=hä ya=dutu ‘Monda pa di=paua
 SG=Juan 3PRES=trae PL=ropa México PREP 3PRES=vender
 ‘Juan trae ropa de México para vender.’ (Hernández Cruz *et al.* 2010: 12)

- (4) Iš karinta pega ko' 'atsi **n=Daniel** 'išta **n=Iván** be escuela
y tarde ya 1D.CPL. llegar CLS=Daniel y CLS=Iván LOC escuela
'...y ya en la tarde llegaron Daniel e Iván de la escuela...'
Matlatzinca (Carranza et al 2021: 130)

La marcación del clasificador nominal *in=/n=* del matlatzinca únicamente se da con nombres propios que denotan personas del sexo masculino. Cuando el nombre propio designa a una mujer se usa, entre otros, *ma*. Esta partícula no tiene significados asociados a la edad ni estado civil. De hecho, es posible usarse con nombres de animales domésticos del sexo femenino, como se muestra en (6).

- (5) Como a las once, **ma Margara** ga man yabi be Gigante
como a las once, doña Margarita COP 3SB.AMB llevar.agua LOC árbol.gigante
'...como a las once, doña margarita llevaba agua por el Gigante'

- (6) **Ma čina** tuhəhwə rokunhó-hə ne=to sini,
ma china 3SG.CPL-PL cuatro-PL PL=DIM perro
'La china tuvo cuatro perritos

tenó-wewi te=to níhma či tenó-wewi te=to šú-siní
dos-DL DL=DIM macho y dos-DL DL=DIM hembra-perro
dos machos y dos perritas' (Gómez González 2019)

Algo importante que observamos, y que tomamos como parte del análisis, es que, en ambas lenguas, la marcación del número en los nombres propios no está presente en los usos vocativos, como se muestra en (7a) (otomí) y (7b) (matlatzinca).

- (7) a. **Xuua** bá=handi 'bu ya ba=hñui ra=oni
Juan 2PRES=ver COND ya 3PDO=poner SG=gallina
'Juan, ve a ver si ya puso la gallina.'
Otomí (Hernández Cruz et al. 2010: 9)

- b. **Madai**, 'ihte tatiá tit'í ne=fruta kwéh taní Písubí
Madaí, 2SG.MED recordar DEM.DIST PL=fruta 1PL.CPL comprar Temas
'Madaí, te acuerdas de esas frutas que compramos en Temascaltepec'

Este trabajo busca integrar la descripción de las marcas de número y de los clasificadores a una teoría sobre la referencia definida, pues en matlatzinca las frases nominales con interpretación definida son escuetas (aparecen solo con el clasificador o con las marcas de número), y en otomí, aunque sí hay una configuración de las frases nominales que permite que se interpreten como definidas, las frases marcadas únicamente en número también pueden tener esta interpretación.

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Nouns and demonstratives of Otomi

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This presentation derives from a larger project that consisted of the documentation of local geography and life memories in Otomi (ISO 639-3 ott), a native Mexican language. The goal of this research is to encourage the study of language through documentation of community knowledge and the creation of written material. The anecdotes took place in the early 70's and were collected during the Winter 2022 in the municipality of Temoaya, State of Mexico. The methods used to collect the data were (1) interviews, to get to know more about the speakers' everyday life. (2) Field walks (Cruz, E., 2017) in places that are important for the community members such as mountains, spring water, wells, and corn plantations. (3) Description of different areas through pictures and recordings of non-easy access locations. This was a very effective technique to collect data from old or sick speakers who cannot move easily but whose memories are vivid.

The anecdotes contain elders' wisdom related to geography, such as Otomi toponyms and the stories behind them. The narratives were recorded from 14 adult Temoaya Otomi speakers, then transcribed, and analyzed in Otomi. Finally, they were translated to English and Spanish resulting in a digital collection (See Image 1), accessible to anyone interested in the language and culture.



Image 1. Digital collection of Living memories

The material collected contains meaningful data that allows a detailed analysis of the noun system. So, in this talk I will discuss some of the properties identified at the NP level that are shared by proper nouns such as demonstratives, diminutives, honorifics and bare forms.

In Otomi, there are simple and complex demonstratives. In Table 1 we can see that simple demonstratives precede proper nouns as in (1a) & (1b), and common nouns as in (2a) & (2b). These demonstratives mark for proximity, number and definiteness.

Table 1 Definite demonstratives

	+PROX		+DIST
SG	<u>nu</u>		<u>ka</u>
(1a)	(A) To xiphi <u>nu</u> Xua to ʃiphi nɾ ʃua 1SG.PST say DEM.SG.PROX John <i>I told John</i>	(1b)	To käjti ka Xua mande to-kāhti ka ʃua mande 1SG.PST-see DEM.SG.DIST John ADV <i>I saw John yesterday</i>
PL	<u>yu</u>		<u>ku</u>
(2a)	Bi tsi <u>yu</u> bahtsi ra mihkwa bi tsi yɾ bahtsi ra-mih-kwa 1SG.PST say DEM.PL.PROX children 3PL.PRS-sit-LOC <i>The children that are sitting here ate</i>	(2b)	Bi maphi <u>ku</u> wene bi-maphi kɾ wene 1SG.PST-scream DEM.PL.DIST baby <i>The babies screamed</i>

In table 1, nu, the singular proximal demonstrative, implies that the listener not only knows *Xua* (1a) but is somehow looking at him. In case *Xua* was not present, the demonstrative used would be the distant singular demonstrative *ka* as in (1b). The same applies whether the entity is a proper, common, mass, or countable noun. In both cases, whether the speaker uses nu or *ka*, it is implied that the listener knows the entity being mentioned. If the speaker was talking about a random *Xua*, out of many *Xuas* that exist in the world of the speaker, the demonstrative used would be the indefinite singular form *na* ‘one’.

Complex demonstratives are formed by two simple demonstratives such as in example (3) and (4).

(3)

nu-ku tsi khani bi-ntiji bi-ma
nɾ-kɾ tsi kʰāni bi-ntihi bi-ma
DEM.SG-PL. HONOR. people 3PL.PST-hurry up 3PL.PST-go
and the dear people hurry up to leave

(4)

nu-guegue bi-doi
nɾ-gege bi-doi
DEM.SG-3SG 3SG.PST-buy
he bought it

These complex demonstratives can precede proper nouns, with an emphatic function.

Finally, Otomi nouns are preceded by a demonstrative, including proper nouns, and few can be bare. Documented proper nouns include personal people’s name, toponyms and demonyms.

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Antonomasia: metonymical and metaphorical non-bare proper names

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In antonomasia, proper names do not refer to their bearers, e.g., (1) refers to Astor Piazzolla. Based on a corpus study using the New York Times antonomasia database of Schwab et al. (2022), it is argued that antonomasia involves exactly two steps, an initial metonymic mapping from an individual onto a property, which is subsequently interpreted metaphorically.

(1) *the Michelangelo of tango*

First, the metonymy maps the name bearer onto the property of being an exemplary representative for a specific domain, in (1), the domain of visual arts. Other properties of the name bearer are ignored, e.g., Michelangelo's height or hair colour. The mapping instantiates Lakoff's (1987) paragon concept: A domain can be represented by an exemplary individual member. Thus, in a first version, the paragon relation relates an individual and a domain. Identifying the relevant domain often requires culture-specific knowledge about the individual. Formally, we map a person x onto the property of representing exemplarily the domain which x represents (relation **ER**; 2a). Given Michelangelo's paragon role of for visual arts – **ER(m, visual-arts')** –, where '**m**' is the semantic representation of *Michelangelo*, (2b) can be interpreted as (2c):

$$(2a) \quad \lambda y \lambda x. \mathbf{ER}(x, \iota z. \mathbf{ER}(y, z)) \quad b \quad \lambda x. \mathbf{ER}(x, \iota z. \mathbf{ER}(\mathbf{m}, z)) \quad c \quad \lambda x. \mathbf{ER}(x, \mathbf{visual-arts}')$$

The property of being an exemplary representative can be formalised in terms of salience (von Heusinger 2006) in that the paragon concept introduces a salience ranking within the domain, selecting the maximally salient entities with respect to this ranking. Cases of antonomasia with indefinite articles like (3) and (4) show that this ranking may introduce several maximally salient entities. The information that there is only one such entity must be contributed by the definite article like in (1) or a possessive DP like in (5), see (6b) for details.

(3) *a literary Michael Jordan/Babe Ruth/Mozart/Einstein; a musical Einstein/Babe Ruth*

(4) *a hockey Shakespeare, science-fiction Bach, basketball Shakespeare/Mozart/Einstein*

(5) *fashion's Johnny Appleseed*

Second, the resulting property is interpreted in terms of a metaphor. The denotation of a metaphorical expression is in some way similar to the denotation of the literal interpretation of the expression. E.g., *fly by* in a temporal sense is metaphorical and shares with the literal, spatial interpretation the notion of swiftness. Following Conceptual Metaphor Theory (Lakoff 1993), we base the similarity between literal and metaphorical denotations of an expression on an underlying mapping that projects the structure of a 'source domain', of which the literal denotation is a part, onto a 'target domain', which comprises the denotation of the metaphorical interpretation. The mapping transfers properties of the literal denotation to the denotation of the metaphorical interpretation, which introduces the similarity between the denotations. The mapping in *fly by* goes from the domain of motion to the one of time, in short, 'TIME IS MOTION'.

In antonomasia, the metaphorical mapping goes from the domain introduced by the name bearer to the domain specified by the modifying phrase – in (1), *tango* –, which transfers the role of paragon to the second domain. Thus, *Michelangelo of tango* is interpreted as 'being an exemplary representative for the domain of tango'. The second domain is typically introduced by a modifying *of*-PP, but it can also be expressed by modifying adjective phrases, non-head parts of compounds whose head is the proper name, or possessive DP specifiers, as in (3)-(5).

There is no established formalisation for metaphors in terms of an operator, because metaphor is a destructive semantic operation, which replaces information, e.g., for *fly by*, the spatial domain is replaced by a temporal one. In the case of (1), we go from (2c) to (6a), replacing the relevant domain, and then the semantics of (1) can be derived compositionally like in (6b):

- (6)a. $\lambda x. \mathbf{ER}(x, \mathbf{tango}')$ (3b) $\lambda P \lambda x. P(x) [\lambda y. \mathbf{ER}(y, \mathbf{tango}')] = \lambda x. \mathbf{ER}(x, \mathbf{tango}')$

This analysis of antonomasia in terms of properties predicts that antonomasia can occur with all kinds of determiners. In the corpus, the overwhelming majority (93.7%) of cases exhibits a definite determiner, but other determiners are attested, apart from indefinite articles and possessive DPs like in (3)-(5) there are also examples with the determiners *no* and *some*:

- (7) *He is no Tony Manero of the tango/some Mozart of engineering.*

As a specific kind of metaphor, antonomasia should allow for extensions (i.e., chains sharing the same mapping between domains) like the stage-world mappings in the Shakespeare quote (8). Such antonomasia chains do exist; (9) involves three mappings from aviation to basketball:

- (8) *And all the world's a stage, and all the men and women merely players...*
 (9) *But if Jordan is the Chuck Yeager of basketball, Julius Erving was Charles Lindbergh and Connie Hawkins was its Wright Brothers.*

At the same time, example (9) indicates that the notion of paragon must be refined: A domain might have several paragons, each one with its specific nature of exemplariness (here, roughly, in the roles of record breaker, populariser, and pioneer of aviation). Consequently, an individual is an exemplary representative of a domain only with respect to a specific role.

Thus, a refined formalisation of the paragon concept introduces an additional parameter for the role of the individual in the domain. The concept emerges as a three-place relation between an individual, a role, and a domain. The role is formalised as a relation between the individual and the domain, and introduces a salience ranking of its own, which allows singling out the maximally salient individuals of each ranking as the respective relevant exemplary representatives.

This analysis integrates previous work analysing antonomasia exclusively as metaphor (Kleiber 1991) or metonymy (Barcelona 2003). While Brdar and Brdar-Szabó (2007) bring together metonymy and metaphor in their analysis of antonomasia, their analysis is overly complex and cannot delimit antonomasia against related phenomena like in (10)-(12):

- (10) *a second Zidane*
 (11) *the Paris of my youth*
 (12) *l'optimisme étourdi d'un La Fontaine* 'the giddy optimism of a La Fontaine'

The proposed analysis distinguishes antonomasia like (1)-(5) from cases like (10), which only involve the first, metonymical step but no domain mapping, thus, (10) introduces another exemplary representative for the same domain (football). Also, (11) is no antonomasia but a mapping from an individual to one of its spatiotemporal stages (Kratzer 1995), and (12), a metonymic mapping to the property of being like the proper noun referent (Gary-Prieur 1991).

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Formal markers of depropriation of proper names in Polish

In certain syntactic contexts, proper names in Polish begin to function in a special way, breaking away from their basic proper name function (i.e. individual denotation and purely identifying function; cf. Pulgram 1954; Nystrom 2016). These are the contexts in which the proper name is preceded by an element such as *drugi* (“another”), *jakiś* (“some”), for example, *drugi Hitler* (“another Hitler”), *jakiś Oxford* (“some Oxford”). Another type of syntactic depropriation is the construction “X (of) something”, e.g. *Goebbels stanu wojennego* (“Goebbels of the Martial Law”), *Wenecja północy* (“Venice of the North”), *polskie Carcassone* (“Polish Carcassone”), common in Polish. In this type of structure, the name loses its unitary denotation and begins to denote a general concept. The meaning of the concept is based on extra-linguistic knowledge about the primary referent of the proper name. Here we can speak of the connotations of the proper name, which are understood as additional and conventional associations invoked by the name. In depropriation structures, these connotations form a sphere of meaning that is relevant for the interpretation/understanding/reception of the name. For such metaphorical uses of the name to be effective, the connotations must belong to the level of general knowledge (encyclopedic: what is Venice, who was Hitler). If the recipients do not have this kind of knowledge, they cannot decode the whole structure correctly.

The paper will show which syntactic constructions are indicators of this use of proper names (Camacho 2019). It will also present examples that illustrate the extent of this phenomenon in the language and raise questions about the productivity of this phenomenon, its systemic limitations and its impact on the lexical resources of the language. Can we say that in this case a new linguistic unit has been established? It appears to be a textual phenomenon, although if we refer to some approaches from metaphor theory one can postulate an interpretation in the direction of “establishing a new conceptual unit” (Wee 2006). The established, well-known knowledge of the primary referent of the name is the semantic basis of metaphorization, while the formal indicators of the process are elements like: *jakiś* ‘some’, *drugi* ‘second’, *nowy* ‘new’, *kolejny* ‘next’ ‘another’. These formal indicators can be put into a class of terms that suggest secondary character, similarity or imitation, where the comparison-based characteristics are the basis of the shift.

In addition, there are lexemes in Polish which do not require the use of the indicators in question. In such cases, the proper name loses its unitary identifying function due to commonization. These are the words such as *adidas* (“sports shoe”, from Adidas, a company name) or *pampers* (“disposable diapers made of absorbent materials”, from the brand name Pampers, a product of the Procter&Gamble company). They instantiate the universal phenomenon of generalization of proper names, common in other languages as well (Clankie 2002). However, it is important to distinguish between systemic phenomena on the one hand and textual and discourse phenomena on the other. It seems that the difference between the two is indicated precisely by the need for certain syntactic indicators to occur in context. The necessity of an additional context-term “transferring” the name to a secondary object may be by an intuitive marker of whether a given use belongs to the system or text level.

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A Six-Language Comparison of Non-Bare Proper Names

This paper is a qualitative and quantitative analysis of forms and uses of non-bare Proper Names (PN) in Dutch (D), English (E), French (F), Greek (G), White Hmong (WH), and Polish (P), focusing on the themes: (1) What categories can accompany PN in natural language (2) What is their meaning contribution? How does this meaning combine with that of proper names? Observations are also offered on selected syntactic relations involving classifiers (CLF) and place deictics (PD) (e.g. *Chris here*). The quantitative section compares the category frequencies of definite (DA) and indefinite articles (IA); demonstratives (DEM) (proximal, distal, and others); quantifiers, non-quantificational *one* and *some* and translation equivalents; *no*, *said*; *a certain* and equivalents; DEM+N *of a* PN; DEM +N +PN; DEM+PN+N; possessives POSS+PN; adjectivals; restrictive relative clauses; WH CLF; and PD. The quantitative analysis includes all tokens from 10 D, E, F, G, and P novels, and 10 WH novels and autobiographies (latter included because very few WH novels exist), reported as % normed for total words in the works. (Final counts will be given in table form). Not all the languages include all these types, and even those including the same types can differ in frequency, subtle semantics, and discourse functions. The qualitative analysis is based on all relevant examples in (a) the 10 long works; (b) a published translation of an original from each language; (c) electronic corpora; (d) TV speech for D, E, F, G, P; (e) hand recorded spontaneous speech for E, F, G; (f) newspapers, magazines, blogs, internet comments, etc., and (g) native speaker judgments.

The language choice is partly a convenience sample due to the need for discourse analysis to examine the data in context in languages I can understand, with native speaker consultation. Five are Indo-European; WH is not. Their determiner categories and determiner + PN semantics and pragmatics vary in interesting ways; e.g. (a) P and WH lack articles but are unrelated and typologically different; (b) only WH has obligatory classifiers (c) only G uses articles obligatorily with PN in certain contexts (d) F and D have archaic, regional use of definite DA+PN (e) E only allows DA+PN with plural PN (the Smiths) and with *the* pronounced with a tense high front vowel to mark a referent as the “genuine” well-known person of that name (similar to F), and more rarely, in an affectionately playful way marking the referent as different from others, or else in a negative, distancing tone. English also has the highly marked use of the F article *la* to indicate a woman distinguished negatively for her sexy and entitled behavior. However, with an adjectival modifier or restrictive relative clause, a DA or IA, is very frequent in D, E, and F. G requires a DA with DEM (*aflo to N* (this the N ‘this N’)), and F does not generally distinguish proximate vs distal demonstratives without the marked addition of another morpheme (*ci*, *la*), while WH has a 3-way distinction.

These languages show a spread of conceptually related but varied expressions of attitude, and/or information status, and and/or focus in their non-bare PN constructions; e.g. E, F and D all have both IA + PN and “*a certain* PN” to introduce a new referent, but the latter has a stronger particularizing and focusing sense in E than in D and F. In these, the construction is frequently translated professionally into English with the IA. In P, the uses of *pewien* ‘certain’ and “*jakaś* ‘some’ (non-quantificational) also serve related but distinct functions. e.g.:

1. *jakaś pani Skąpska* (some Mrs. Skąpska) [There was] ‘a Mrs. Skąpska [there].’ (P, novel)

In P, *jakaś* introduces a brand new referent. In E *some* is extremely marked and derogatory as a determiner for a singular PN. Thus distinguishing the fine points of crosslinguistic difference in such closely related constructions requires detailed study of the semantics of the words in relation to their semantic fields, with consideration of their collocations and the propositional semantics, in each language on its own, plus the language-specific pragmatic conventions.Also considered is POSS +PN, the use of which differs quite a bit across the languages, although the literal semantics is the same. This is frequent in Greek in both direct address and reference to others, indicating closeness, or a warm, friendly attitude, even in a class where the students and teacher have never met in person, as in 2 in email to me by a native Greek speaking teacher about a student in our synchronous online class not able to attend on a certain day:

2. i Kristina mas (the-Kristina our) ‘our Kristina’

Another attitudinal example is the distancing effect of the distal demonstrative, a metaphorical extension widely discussed. It frequently conveys a negative sense in English, as in (3), as a metaphorical extension of its more literal use, but it can also be used in a positive sense of distancing if the referent is held out as a praiseworthy example apart from other people. This shows that the very concept of distance can have different realizations, some of which may differ across languages, e.g., in WH (4), the distal DEM with a PN is very negative and insulting. 5 and 6 show a related type, the use of a DEM with ADJ N of PN.

3. That Victor! If he doesn’t straighten up... (E, novel)

4. Rose ntawd...(Rose that) ‘that Rose’) (H, elicited)

5. ce damné imbécile d’Enrico (DEM damned imbecile of E) ‘that damn imbecile E’(F, trans.)

6. ...die trut van een Dorien Jager (D, novel) (‘that bitch of a Dorien Jager’)

Seemingly paradoxically, the use of the proximate DEM +PN also has a distancing tone in that it is a marked form which depersonalizes the referent, but on the information status level, it signals that a referent is relatively new to the discourse, as in 7:

7. I don’t know this Charlotte Hayes. (E, spontaneous speech; pointing to a brochure.)

This analysis has consequences for research on the nature of PN ranging from that of Frege (1892) to Anderson (2007), Matushansky. (e.g. 2006, 2008, 2014, 2015), McKinsey 2010, Fara (2015), Camacho 2019, Lee 2020, Arnaud 2022, and Agolli 2023, among others. That is, I argue that the semantics of the modifiers used with PN and their behavior in discourse in each language suggests that the PN category is best analyzed in terms of a prototype. I will also show that this treatment of non-bare PN has consequences for treatments of forms of NP reference in general. Finally, I argue that although some or all of the languages investigated here use non-bare PN in some language specific ways, they are linked in having conceptually similar purposes involving point of view (e.g. varied attitudes, given/new information status, focus). (cf. Anderson 2009; Author 2010, 2014, 2024; Kleiber 1992, 2005, 2006; Gary-Prieur 1994, Schnedecker 2005, 2009, Rybarczyk 2015). The level of markedness, the specifics of the component lexical and propositional semantics, and the type of metaphorical extension in each language work together to produce interconnected particularities in non-bare PN cross-linguistically.